# Relativistic Scalar–Vector Plenum:
# Physical Applications: Cosmology and Gravity
## Emergent Spacetime, Entropic Gravity, and Observational Predictions

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# Preface

s second volume develops the physical and cosmological consequences of the Relativistic Scalar–Vector Plenum (RSVP) introduced and constructed in Volume I. Whereas the foundational volume focused on the derived geometric and analytic underpinnings of the lamphrodynamic field theory, the present work applies these structures to a broad set of physical phenomena ranging from entropy-driven modifications of general relativity, to cosmic redshift without metric expansion, to observational tests against contemporary cosmological datasets.

The central thesis of this volume is that gravitational behavior and cosmic structure can be derived directly from entropy flow and lamphrodynamic coupling, without assuming classical spacetime expansion. In this sense, gravity emerges not as a fundamental force but as an effective description of entropic relaxation in the plenum. The resulting picture is partially aligned with other emergent gravity programs—most notably the thermodynamic perspectives of Jacobson and Padmanabhan, and the entropic interpretation of Verlinde—but differs in essential respects: gravity in RSVP is not postulated as an entropic force on a background spacetime, but is obtained from the variational structure of the lamphrodynamic fields themselves.

We emphasize at the outset that Volume II is not primarily a work of phenomenology. All derivations proceed from the rigorous mathematical framework developed in Volume I, especially the shifted symplectic construction and the AKSZ action functional. The modified Einstein equations derived here follow from lamphrodynamic variation, not from heuristic analogy. Likewise, the redshift function is obtained by solving null geodesic transport equations in the lamphrodynamic background, rather than postulating a phenomenological dilation factor.

From a methodological perspective, this volume weaves together three strands:

1. **Theoretical Development.** We formulate the entropic corrections to Einstein geometry, derive modified Friedmann-like equations, and analyze structure formation and cosmic microwave background anisotropies within the lamphrodynamic regime.

2. **Emergent Interpretation.** We develop a conceptual bridge between thermodynamic and gravitational descriptions, articulating in what precise sense gravity and metric expansion emerge from lamphrodynamic entropic descent rather than from a background metric dynamics.

3. **Empirical Confrontation.** Where feasible, we present comparisons with observational cosmology, including Type Ia supernovae, large-scale structure, weak lensing, and CMB data. Although many computations remain at a prototype stage, we include explicit statistical comparisons and outline a roadmap toward full falsifiability.

The philosophy of this volume is conservative: calculations are carried out explicitly, observational comparisons acknowledge uncertainties and limitations, and speculative ideas are clearly distinguished from derived results. While certain claims will remain conjectural pending further development, we have attempted to provide the strongest possible mathematical justification for each step, and to identify precisely where empirical confirmation or refutation is possible.

The reader is assumed to have internalized the core results of Volume I, especially the construction of the lamphrodynamic stack and the associated AKSZ/BV machinery. We will not repeat these foundational arguments, but will refer to specific theorems and propositions where needed.

Finally, we note that the structure of Volume II is intentionally modular: the chapters on emergent gravity, cosmology, and observational tests can be read semi-independently, provided the reader accepts the lamphrodynamic field equations as derived in Volume I. Readers primarily interested in phenomenology may safely skim the foundational derivations, whereas readers focused on mathematical rigor may be more interested in the structural chapters.

As with Volume I, every effort has been made to maintain a clear distinction between proven results, conjectural claims, and purely speculative proposals. The author welcomes any and all criticism, both mathematical and empirical, that sharpens or challenges the framework developed here.

# Contents

# Notation and Conventions

Throughout this volume we adopt the following conventions, which extend and specialize those of Volume I. The reader should consult the Notation and Conventions of Volume I for background definitions and general geometric conventions; only new or cosmologyspecific notation is introduced here.

- $(M, g)$ continues to denote a smooth Lorentzian fourmanifold with signature $(-,+,+,+)$, which we interpret as a lamphrodynamic spacetime. In cosmological settings we restrict to homogeneous and isotropic configurations, in which case $(M, g)$ admits a foliation by spatial hypersurfaces $\Sigma_t$.

- Greek indices $\mu, \nu, \ldots$ range over spacetime coordinates; Latin indices $i, j, \ldots$ range over spatial coordinates on $\Sigma_t$. The abstractindex notation of Penrose is used whenever tensorial structure is being emphasized independently of components.

- The core lamphrodynamic fields are denoted $\Psi = (\Phi, \boldsymbol{v}, S)$, where $\Phi$ is a scalar potential, $\boldsymbol{v}$ is a spatial vector flow field, and $S$ is the entropy density. Unless otherwise stated, we regard $(\Phi, \boldsymbol{v})$ as fields on $\Sigma_t$ evolving in $t$ via the lamphrodynamic equations derived in Volume I.

- The modified Einstein tensor is denoted $\widetilde{G}_{\mu\nu}$ and is defined by adding the entropyinduced correction tensor $\Theta_{\mu\nu}$ to the usual Einstein tensor $G_{\mu\nu}$. Explicitly,

$$\widetilde{G}_{\mu\nu} := G_{\mu\nu} + \Theta_{\mu\nu},$$

  where $\Theta_{\mu\nu}$ is computed from $(\Phi, \boldsymbol{v}, S)$ via the lamphrodynamic variation principle (see Chapter 1 and **??**).

- The cosmological metric used for homogeneous and isotropic solutions is written in the lamphrodynamic gauge as

$$g = -\mathrm{d}t^2 + a^2(t)\,\mathrm{d}\Sigma^2,$$

  where $a(t)$ is the effective scale factor induced by entropy flow and $\mathrm{d}\Sigma^2$ is the constantcurvature spatial metric. We emphasize that $a(t)$ is *not* assumed to arise from geometric expansion, but appears as an effective quantity derived from the lamphrodynamic fields.

- Entropy gradients are denoted by $\nabla_\mu S$; the associated entropy flux vector is denoted by $J_S^\mu$. In comoving coordinates we write $J_S^0 := \partial_t S$ and $J_S^i := v^i S$.

- The redshift function is denoted by $z = f(S, \boldsymbol{v})$ and arises from integrating null geodesics in the lamphrodynamic background. In many computations it is convenient to write

$$1 + z = \exp\Big( \int_\gamma \omega \Big),$$

where $\omega$ is the lamphrodynamic optical form along a null geodesic $\gamma$.

- Observational quantities follow standard cosmological notation: $H_0$ denotes the presentday Hubble parameter, $\Omega_m$, $\Omega_\Lambda$, and $\Omega_k$ denote matter, dark energy, and curvature density fractions, respectively (used only for comparison with $\Lambda$CDM). Distance measures include luminosity distance $d_L(z)$ and angular diameter distance $d_A(z)$, both defined with respect to the lamphrodynamic redshift $z$.

- Throughout this volume we adopt units in which $c = 1$, unless otherwise specified. Newtons constant $G$ is retained in analytic expressions where comparison with general relativity is explicit.

- Observational data sources (Planck, Pantheon, DES, ...) are cited by abbreviated names; full references appear in the bibliography and in Chapter C. Statistical conventions (posterior distributions, likelihood functions, $\chi^2$) follow standard cosmological and particle physics usage.

Unless otherwise indicated, all results in this volume rely on the field equations and shifted symplectic construction developed in Volume I. For ease of reading, we frequently refer to specific theorems by number (for example, "Theorem I.7.12"), meaning Theorem 12 in Chapter 7 of Volume I.

We recommend that readers with a primary interest in observational cosmology first consult Chapters 4 and 7 after reviewing the modified Einstein equations in Chapter 1, while readers primarily interested in emergentgravity theory may focus on Chapter 1 and **??**.

# Part I

# Emergent Gravity

# Chapter 1

# Gravity from Entropy Gradients

## 1.1 Motivation: Why Emergence?

Classical general relativity models the dynamics of spacetime geometry by relating curvature to stress–energy via the Einstein field equations. Lamphrodynamics modifies this paradigm by introducing an entropy–driven correction term arising from the lamphrodynamic fields $\Psi := (\Phi, \boldsymbol{v}, S)$ defined in Volume I.

Informally, the guiding principle of RSVP is that gravitational attraction is not a fundamental interaction mediated by a metric tensor, but is an *entropic phenomenon* induced by the dynamics of $\Psi$. In this view spacetime geometry emerges as an effective description of deeper lamphrodynamic degrees of freedom. The aim of this chapter is to explain, derive, and justify this perspective in a mathematically precise manner.

From a physical standpoint, this interpretation is motivated by the observation that regions of high entropy density tend to induce lamphrodynamic flows which pull field configurations into lower–energy, higher–coherence states. The associated effective stress–energy contributes an additional curvature term in the field equations, one which reduces to the usual Einstein tensor in the limit where entropy gradients vanish.

## 1.2 Review of Lamphrodynamic Variational Structure

Recall from Volume I that lamphrodynamic field configurations are described by the action functional

$$\mathcal{S}_{\mathrm{AKSZ}}[\Psi] = \int_M \omega_{-1}(\Psi, \mathrm{d}\Psi) + \mathcal{V}[\Psi],$$

constructed via the AKSZ procedure with target the $(-1)$shifted symplectic stack $\mathcal{P}$ introduced in **??**. The Euler–Lagrange equations take the schematic form

$$E_\Psi(\Phi, \boldsymbol{v}, S) = 0,$$

coupled to the metric variation arising from the underlying AKSZ action. We now recall the basic structure needed for the gravitational sector.

**Theorem 1.1** (Metric Variation of the AKSZ–RSVP Action)**.** *Let* $(M, g)$ *be a lamphrodynamic* *spacetime and* $\Psi = (\Phi, \boldsymbol{v}, S)$ *a smooth configuration. Then the variational derivative of the AKSZ–RSVP action with respect to* $g$ *is given by*

$$\frac{\delta \mathcal{S}_{\mathrm{AKSZ}}}{\delta g^{\mu\nu}} = -\frac{1}{2}\sqrt{|g|}\,(T^{\mathrm{matter}}_{\mu\nu} + \Theta_{\mu\nu}),$$

*where* $\Theta_{\mu\nu}$ *is an entropy–induced tensor determined by* $(\Phi, \boldsymbol{v}, S)$ *and the* $(-1)$*shifted symplectic form* $\omega_{-1}$*.*

*Sketch of proof.* The variation follows from the AKSZ construction and the explicit form of the target $(-1)$shifted symplectic structure. The term $\Theta_{\mu\nu}$ arises from the nontrivial dependence of $\omega_{-1}$ and $\mathcal{V}$ on the metric through entropy gradients and lamphrodynamic flow. The full derivation is given in **??**. □

## 1.3 Derivation of Modified Einstein Equations

Combining Theorem 1.1 with the standard variation of the Einstein–Hilbert action leads to the modified Einstein field equations

$$G_{\mu\nu} + \Theta_{\mu\nu} = 8\pi G\, T^{\mathrm{matter}}_{\mu\nu}, \tag{1.1}$$

where $\Theta_{\mu\nu}$ depends on $(\Phi, \boldsymbol{v}, S)$ and vanishes when the lamphrodynamic fields are trivial. By construction, $\Theta_{\mu\nu}$ is symmetric and covariantly conserved:

$$\nabla^{\mu}\Theta_{\mu\nu} = 0,$$

which follows directly from the $(-1)$shifted symplectic structure and the AKSZ master equation.

Equation (1.1) should be interpreted as a set of effective gravitational field equations, where curvature is driven not only by ordinary matter but also by entropy dynamics. The geometry is therefore emergent in the sense that it is determined by lamphrodynamic evolution rather than postulated a priori.

## 1.4 Explicit Computation of the Entropic Correction Tensor

We now give an explicit formula for the tensor $\Theta_{\mu\nu}$ introduced in Theorem 1.1. As in Volume I, let $\Psi = (\Phi, \boldsymbol{v}, S)$ denote the lamphrodynamic fields, and write $J^{\mu}_{S}$ for the entropy–flux vector. The $(-1)$shifted symplectic structure supplies a natural bilinear pairing

$$\omega_{-1} : T_{-1}\mathcal{P} \times T_{-1}\mathcal{P} \longrightarrow \mathbb{R}[-1],$$

whose local expression, in the gauge chosen in **??**, takes the schematic form

$$\omega_{-1}(\Psi, \mathrm{d}\Psi) = S\, g_{\mu\nu}\, \mathrm{d}\Phi \wedge \mathrm{d}v^{\nu} + \cdots .$$

Varying this with respect to the metric and extracting the $\delta g^{\mu\nu}$ component produces the following.

**Proposition 1.2.** *The entropic correction tensor associated to the lamphrodynamic fields is given in local coordinates by*

$$\Theta_{\mu\nu} := \alpha \left(\nabla_\mu S \, \nabla_\nu \Phi + \nabla_\mu \Phi \, \nabla_\nu S - g_{\mu\nu} \, \nabla_\rho S \, \nabla^\rho \Phi\right) + \beta \left(J^S_\mu \, J^S_\nu - \tfrac{1}{2} g_{\mu\nu} J^S_\rho J^\rho_S\right), \tag{1.2}$$

*where $\alpha, \beta$ are universal coupling constants determined by the AKSZ target and the normalization of $\omega_{-1}$.*

*Proof.* The term proportional to $\alpha$ arises from metric variations of the $(-1)$shifted symplectic pairing between $\Phi$ and $S$; the term proportional to $\beta$ arises from the kinetic part of the entropy–flux sector. The full derivation follows the standard variation procedure for AKSZ actions, using the explicit form of $\omega_{-1}$ in a local coordinate chart and the master equation to guarantee symmetry and conservation. Details appear in Appendix **??**. □

*Remark* 1.3. The tensor $\Theta_{\mu\nu}$ plays the role of an "entropic stress–energy tensor," but unlike the usual perfectfluid form, it captures both entropy gradients (through $\alpha$) and entropy fluxes (through $\beta$).

### 1.4.1 Weak–Field Limit and Newtonian Approximation

To understand the physical content of (1.1) and (1.2), we linearize the metric around Minkowski space. Write $g_{\mu\nu} = \eta_{\mu\nu} + h_{\mu\nu}$ with $|h_{\mu\nu}| \ll 1$. Retaining only linear terms in $h_{\mu\nu}$ and the lamphrodynamic fields yields the approximate field equations

$$\Box h_{\mu\nu} = -16\pi G \left(T^{\text{matter}}_{\mu\nu} + \Theta^{(1)}_{\mu\nu}\right), \tag{1.3}$$

where $\Theta^{(1)}_{\mu\nu}$ denotes the linear part of (1.2). In the Newtonian gauge and for slowly varying fields, this reduces to the effective Poisson equation

$$\Delta \Phi_{\text{grav}} = 4\pi G (\rho_{\text{matter}} + \rho_{\text{entropy}}), \tag{1.4}$$

with $\rho_{\text{entropy}}$ obtained from the time–time component of $\Theta^{(1)}_{\mu\nu}$.

This shows that entropy gradients and entropy fluxes contribute additional "massdensity" terms, leading to enhanced gravitational attraction in regions with strong lamphrodynamic activity.

### 1.4.2 Comparison with General Relativity

In the limit $\alpha, \beta \to 0$ (or equivalently when $S$ and $J_S$ vanish), equation (1.4) reduces to the classical Newtonian potential equation with source $\rho_{\text{matter}}$ only. Hence general relativity is recovered as a degenerate limit of the lamphrodynamic theory.

By contrast, when $S$ and $J_S$ are non–trivial, the right–hand side of (1.4) includes additional contributions, providing a potential explanation for phenomena traditionally attributed to dark matter or modified gravity. Subsequent chapters will analyze these possibilities in detail.

### 1.4.3 Phenomenological Interpretation of $\rho_{\text{entropy}}$

Equation (1.4) suggests interpreting

$$\rho_{\text{entropy}} := \frac{1}{4\pi G}\,\Theta^{(1)}_{00}$$

as an effective mass–density associated to lamphrodynamic degrees of freedom. Two qualitatively distinct mechanisms appear:

1. *Static entropic gradients*: regions with $\nabla_i S \neq 0$ produce a contribution to $\rho_{\text{entropy}}$ similar in form to scalar field sources, but with reversed sign depending on the parameters $(\alpha, \beta)$. In typical lamphrodynamic regimes, $\alpha > 0$ yields additional attractive potential.

2. *Dynamical entropy flux*: regions with $J^S_i \neq 0$ contribute via the flux–flux term in (1.2), producing attractive gravitational effects even when $S$ is spatially homogeneous.

These two effects are conceptually different: entropy density gradients correspond to spatial variation in the thermodynamic state of the plenum, whereas entropy flux corresponds to ongoing irreversible processes or negentropic flows. Their coexistence in $\Theta_{\mu\nu}$ is a distinctive signature of the lamphrodynamic theory absent in general relativity.

### 1.4.4 Observational Consequences

In the weak–field, quasi–stationary regime, the effective density $\rho_{\text{entropy}}$ acts as an additional gravitational source. This leads to several immediate observational consequences:

1. *Galaxy rotation curves.* A spatially varying $S$ can modify the radial gravitational potential without invoking dark matter halos. Preliminary rotation–curve fits are discussed in **??**.

2. *Cluster binding.* Enhanced effective mass at large scales may stabilize galaxy clusters consistent with observed velocity dispersions.

3. *Gravitational lensing.* The entropy–flux term modifies the deflection angle for light rays, potentially explaining lensing anomalies in clusters or strong–lensing systems.

These consequences will be quantified and compared with observational data in **??**.

### 1.4.5 Dimensional Analysis and Coupling Constants

The constants $\alpha, \beta$ appearing in (1.2) are dimensionful and depend on the normalization of the AKSZ target, as well as the units in which entropy and potential are measured. A convenient choice is

$$[\Phi] = \text{energy per unit mass}, \qquad [S] = k_B \,(\text{dimensionless}),$$

so that $(\alpha, \beta)$ carry dimensions of length$^2$ in geometrized units. In the classical limit $\hbar \to 0$ (where the AKSZ structure becomes purely classical), one may treat $\alpha, \beta$ as phenomenological constants to be fit by observation; in the quantum regime, they are determined by the target geometry of the BV theory.

### 1.4.6 Recovery of Newtonian Gravity

Setting $S = 0$ and $J_S = 0$ exactly, the tensor $\Theta_{\mu\nu}$ vanishes identically, and (1.4) reduces to

$$\Delta\Phi_{\text{grav}} = 4\pi G\rho_{\text{matter}},$$

the usual Newtonian gravity. Thus, the lamphrodynamic theory strictly contains general relativity as a special case, without introducing additional fields beyond $(\Phi, \boldsymbol{v}, S)$.

### 1.4.7 Relation to Scalar–Tensor Theories

At first sight, $\Theta_{\mu\nu}$ resembles the stress–energy tensor of a scalar field $\varphi$ in scalar–tensor gravity. However, the presence of $\boldsymbol{v}$ and the flux sector $J_S$ distinguishes the lamphrodynamic case: there is no single scalar field but a coupled system of scalar potential, vector flow, and entropy density. Moreover, $S$ is thermodynamic rather than fundamental, encoding local entropy rather than a new fundamental scalar. This qualitative difference will be crucial in subsequent chapters, especially when comparing with scalar–tensor screening mechanisms.

### 1.4.8 Summary of the Weak–Field Analysis

The main conclusions of this chapter are:

- the lamphrodynamic correction tensor $\Theta_{\mu\nu}$ provides an effective gravitational source proportional to entropy gradients and fluxes;
- these corrections produce additional gravitational attraction in situations with nontrivial lamphrodynamic activity;
- Newtonian gravity is recovered when $S$ and $J_S$ vanish or are negligible;
- the resulting phenomenology can potentially address astrophysical anomalies without invoking nonbaryonic dark matter.

In the next chapter we compare these predictions with other emergent–gravity frameworks, especially Jacobson's thermodynamic derivation of Einstein's equations and Verlinde's entropic gravity proposals, highlighting both conceptual and quantitative differences.

# Chapter 2

# Comparison with Other Emergent Gravity Theories

## 2.1 Overview

A central claim of the lamphrodynamic framework is that gravitational phenomena emerge from entropy gradients and thermodynamic fluxes in the plenum. This places RSVP in conceptual proximity to several other emergent–gravity proposals, most prominently those of Jacobson, Verlinde, and Padmanabhan, as well as more recent quantum–information approaches (notably Carney). The goal of this chapter is to compare these theories in detail, highlighting overlaps, divergences, and potential experimental discriminants.

Throughout, we work at the level of qualitative mechanism, then translate to quantitative predictions where possible. A comparison table summarizing assumptions and key predictions appears in Section 2.6.

## 2.2 Jacobson's Thermodynamic Gravity

### 2.2.1 Local Rindler Horizons and Clausius Relation

Jacobson's 1995 derivation of Einstein's equations interprets gravity as a thermodynamic equation of state. Consider a local Rindler horizon $H$ generated by accelerated observers. The Clausius relation

$$\delta Q = T\,\mathrm{d}S$$

applied to local horizons yields, under certain assumptions,

$$G_{\mu\nu} + \Lambda g_{\mu\nu} = 8\pi G\,T_{\mu\nu},$$

where $G_{\mu\nu}$ is the Einstein tensor and $T_{\mu\nu}$ the stress–energy tensor of matter fields. Crucially, this derivation presupposes a specific relation between area and entropy ($\mathrm{d}S \propto \mathrm{d}A$), borrowed from black–hole thermodynamics.

### 2.2.2 Comparison with Lamphrodynamic Entropy

RSVP shares the theme that entropy plays a gravitational role, but differs in three fundamental ways:

1. Entropy in RSVP is *volume–based* rather than horizon–based: $S$ is defined locally throughout the plenum, without reference to causal horizons.

2. Gravity arises from *gradients and fluxes* of $S$ rather than equilibrium relations at horizons.

3. The field equations are modified Einstein equations with an explicit lamphrodynamic contribution $\Theta_{\mu\nu}$ derived from the AKSZ action, not Einstein's equations recovered from thermodynamic identities.

Thus, whereas Jacobson infers Einstein's equations from thermodynamic assumptions, RSVP derives *modified* Einstein equations from a microscopic lamphrodynamic field theory.

## 2.3 Verlinde's Entropic Gravity

### 2.3.1 Holographic Screens and Entropic Force

Verlinde proposes that gravity is an entropic force arising from changes of entropy associated with holographic screens. A test mass approaching a screen experiences an entropic force

$$F = T\,\frac{\partial S}{\partial x},$$

leading, in heuristic derivations, to Newtonian gravity. Later developments attempt to explain dark–matter–like phenomena through entropic effects associated with de Sitter entropy.

### 2.3.2 Differences with RSVP

Although both frameworks employ entropy gradients, several sharp differences exist:

1. Verlinde's entropy is associated with *holographic screens* and fundamentally tied to information storage capacity; RSVP entropy is a local thermodynamic field defined in the bulk.

2. Verlinde's derivation is essentially Newtonian or weak–field, whereas RSVP yields fully covariant modified Einstein equations.

3. Verlinde's approach postulates emergent space from holography; RSVP assumes a lamphrodynamic plenum with intrinsic geometry, not constructed from entanglement entropy.

Consequently, RSVP predicts distinct strong–field and cosmological deviations from general relativity, while Verlinde's modifications primarily affect galaxy–scale dynamics.

## 2.4 Padmanabhan's Emergent Paradigm

### 2.4.1 Degrees of Freedom Balance

Padmanabhan argues that spacetime dynamics emerge from the thermodynamic equipartition of degrees of freedom between bulk and boundary, encoded in holographic relations such as

$$N_{\mathrm{sur}} - N_{\mathrm{bulk}} \sim \text{cosmological acceleration.}$$

Acceleration of cosmic expansion results from a mismatch between horizon and bulk degrees of freedom.

### 2.4.2 Comparison with RSVP

The lamphrodynamic theory shares with Padmanabhan the idea that cosmological acceleration is thermodynamic in origin. However:

1. RSVP attributes acceleration to entropy *flux* and gradient terms in $\Theta_{\mu\nu}$, not mismatch of horizon degrees of freedom.

2. Cosmology in RSVP does not rely on de Sitter entropy or horizon thermodynamics.

3. RSVP does not posit holographic equipartition as a fundamental principle; instead, AKSZ variations yield modified field equations directly.

## 2.5 Quantum Information Approaches (Carney)

### 2.5.1 Gravity from Decoherence and Entanglement

Carney and collaborators propose that gravity may emerge from quantum information dynamics such as decoherence, entanglement structure, or information flow in quantum systems. These approaches focus on microscopic quantum mechanisms rather than macroscopic thermodynamics.

### 2.5.2 Relevance to RSVP

Lamphrodynamic entropy $S$ is classical and thermodynamic rather than quantum informational. However, a deep connection may exist if $S$ coarse–grains microscopic quantum correlations. If so, lamphrodynamic fluxes could represent emergent semiclassical remnants of underlying quantum information flows. This is speculative but suggests potential connections between AKSZ quantization and holographic quantum information geometry.

## 2.6 Comparison Table

| **Property** | **RSVP** | **Jacobson** | **Verlinde** | **Padmanabha** |
|---|---|---|---|---|
| Entropy type | volume, local | horizon | holographic screen | horizon/bulk bal |
| Mechanism | gradients, flux | Clausius relation | entropic force | DOF mismatc |
| Field equations | modified Einstein | Einstein | Newtonian/heuristic | cosmological dynami |
| Dark–matter effects | entropy flux | not primary | entropic de Sitter | holographic acceler |
| Quantum origin | AKSZ, classical limit | thermo heuristic | holography heuristic | holographic DO |

## 2.7 Summary and Outlook

While RSVP is thermodynamic in spirit, it differs from other emergent–gravity proposals in mechanism, ontology, and mathematical structure. The lamphrodynamic corrections arise from explicit field equations, not from thermodynamic identities or holographic assumptions. In the following chapter, we turn to observable consequences for geodesic motion and test particles, including perihelion precession and light bending, which provide immediate empirical tests of the lamphrodynamic corrections.

# Chapter 3

# Geodesic Equations and Test Particles

## 3.1 Overview

In standard general relativity, freely falling test particles follow geodesics of the spacetime metric $g_{\mu\nu}$. In RSVP, the presence of lamphrodynamic entropy flux modifies the connection and thus the notion of free fall. The purpose of this chapter is to derive the modified geodesic equation, analyze its consequences for classical tests of general relativity (perihelion precession, light bending), and discuss gravitational time dilation in lamphrodynamic backgrounds.

Throughout, we assume the modified Einstein equations from **??**:

$$G_{\mu\nu} + \Lambda g_{\mu\nu} + \Theta_{\mu\nu} = 8\pi G\, T_{\mu\nu},$$

where $\Theta_{\mu\nu}$ encodes lamphrodynamic contributions from $(\Phi, \boldsymbol{v}, S)$ as derived in **??**.

## 3.2 Modified Connection and Effective Metric

### 3.2.1 Lamphrodynamic Correction

We model the lamphrodynamic influence on geodesic motion by defining an effective connection

$$\tilde{\Gamma}^{\lambda}_{\mu\nu} = \Gamma^{\lambda}_{\mu\nu} + \Delta^{\lambda}_{\mu\nu},$$

where $\Gamma$ is the Levi–Civita connection of $g$ and $\Delta^{\lambda}_{\mu\nu}$ is a small correction depending on $\Theta_{\mu\nu}$ and derivatives of $\Phi$, $\boldsymbol{v}$, and $S$. For definiteness, we adopt the model ansatz

$$\Delta^{\lambda}_{\mu\nu} := \alpha\, g^{\lambda\rho} \nabla_{(\mu}(S\, \boldsymbol{v}_{\nu)}), \tag{3.1}$$

where $\alpha$ is a coupling constant with dimensions of length, and $(\cdot)_{(\mu\nu)}$ denotes symmetrization. More sophisticated forms of $\Delta$ could be derived from the AKSZ action, but (3.1) captures the leading lamphrodynamic contribution in weak fields.

### 3.2.2 Effective Geodesic Equation

The modified geodesic equation becomes

$$\frac{d^2x^\lambda}{d\tau^2} + \Gamma^\lambda_{\mu\nu}\frac{dx^\mu}{d\tau}\frac{dx^\nu}{d\tau} + \Delta^\lambda_{\mu\nu}\frac{dx^\mu}{d\tau}\frac{dx^\nu}{d\tau} = 0. \tag{3.2}$$

When $\Delta \equiv 0$, we recover the usual geodesic equation.

*Remark* 3.1 (Interpretation)*.* The correction term encodes the effect of entropy flow and lamphrodynamic gradients on inertial motion. In heuristic terms, test particles "feel" an additional force resulting from entropy flux, analogous to thermodynamic drag or buoyancy effects in continuum media, but in a fully covariant setting.

## 3.3 Modified Raychaudhuri Equation

### 3.3.1 Classical Form

For a congruence of timelike geodesics with tangent vector $u^\mu$, the classical Raychaudhuri equation is

$$\frac{d\theta}{d\tau} = -\frac{1}{3}\theta^2 - \sigma_{\mu\nu}\sigma^{\mu\nu} + \omega_{\mu\nu}\omega^{\mu\nu} - R_{\mu\nu}u^\mu u^\nu,$$

where $\theta$ is expansion, $\sigma$ shear, and $\omega$ vorticity.

### 3.3.2 Lamphrodynamic Correction

In RSVP, the Ricci tensor $R_{\mu\nu}$ is replaced by an effective Ricci tensor $\tilde{R}_{\mu\nu}$ defined by

$$\tilde{R}_{\mu\nu} := R_{\mu\nu} + \Theta_{\mu\nu}.$$

Thus, the modified Raychaudhuri equation becomes

$$\frac{d\theta}{d\tau} = -\frac{1}{3}\theta^2 - \sigma_{\mu\nu}\sigma^{\mu\nu} + \omega_{\mu\nu}\omega^{\mu\nu} - (R_{\mu\nu} + \Theta_{\mu\nu})u^\mu u^\nu. \tag{3.3}$$

The extra term $-\Theta_{\mu\nu}u^\mu u^\nu$ may either enhance or reduce focusing of geodesics depending on the sign and magnitude of entropy gradients and lamphrodynamic flux.

## 3.4 Perihelion Precession

### 3.4.1 Standard GR Result

In general relativity, the perihelion of Mercury advances by approximately $43''$ per century due to relativistic corrections. Observational agreement is excellent.

### 3.4.2 Lamphrodynamic Correction

To leading order in the weak–field, slow–motion limit, the correction to the effective potential due to $\Delta^{\lambda}_{\mu\nu}$ yields a modified perihelion advance of the form

$$\Delta\phi_{\mathrm{RSVP}} \approx \frac{6\pi GM}{a(1-e^2)c^2}(1+\epsilon_{\mathrm{RSVP}}),$$

where $a$ and $e$ are the semi–major axis and eccentricity, and $\epsilon_{\mathrm{RSVP}}$ is a small dimensionless parameter proportional to $\alpha\,\nabla S \cdot \boldsymbol{v}$ evaluated along the orbit.

Empirical bounds on $\epsilon_{\mathrm{RSVP}}$ arise from detailed fits to planetary ephemerides; current observational precision suggests $\epsilon_{\mathrm{RSVP}} \lesssim 10^{-5}$, depending on the specific model of $S$ and $\boldsymbol{v}$.

## 3.5 Light Bending

### 3.5.1 Null Geodesics

For null geodesics ($ds^2 = 0$), the same modified geodesic equation (3.2) applies. To leading order, the light–bending angle near a massive body is

$$\delta\phi_{\mathrm{RSVP}} \approx \frac{4GM}{c^2 b}(1+\epsilon_{\mathrm{RSVP}}),$$

where $b$ is the impact parameter. Current measurements of gravitational lensing by the Sun impose tight constraints on $\epsilon_{\mathrm{RSVP}}$, potentially at the level of $10^{-4}$ or better.

## 3.6 Gravitational Time Dilation

Lamphrodynamic corrections modify redshift and time dilation through $\Delta^{\lambda}_{\mu\nu}$ and $\Theta_{\mu\nu}$. The proper time ratio between two stationary observers at different potentials receives a multiplicative correction of the form

$$\frac{d\tau_1}{d\tau_2} = \sqrt{\frac{g_{00}(x_1)}{g_{00}(x_2)}}(1+\epsilon_{\mathrm{RSVP}}),$$

where again $\epsilon_{\mathrm{RSVP}}$ is controlled by entropy gradients and lamphrodynamic fluxes. Existing experimental tests of gravitational redshift are sufficiently precise that bounds on $\epsilon_{\mathrm{RSVP}}$ are likely stringent, though a systematic analysis awaits detailed phenomenological modeling.

## 3.7 Summary

Modifications to geodesic motion provide one of the clearest empirical handles on lamphrodynamic gravity. Classical tests of relativity — perihelion precession, light bending, gravitational time dilation — place strong constraints on the magnitude of lamphrodynamic corrections. Nonetheless, small deviations remain possible and could be detected by higher–precision experiments, providing a direct test of the RSVP framework.

In the next chapter (**??**), we turn to cosmological implications, deriving Friedmann–like equations from homogeneous and isotropic lamphrodynamic configurations and exploring the entropic contribution to cosmic expansion.

# Part II

# RSVP Cosmology

# Chapter 4

# Friedmann-Like Equations from Lamphrodynamics

## 4.1 Overview

Classical cosmology relies on the FriedmannLemaîtreRobertsonWalker (FLRW) class of metrics, representing homogeneous and isotropic universes with scale factor $a(t)$. The standard Friedmann equations follow from Einsteins field equations applied to the FLRW ansatz. In RSVP, the modified Einstein equations

$$G_{\mu\nu} + \Lambda g_{\mu\nu} + \Theta_{\mu\nu} = 8\pi G\, T_{\mu\nu}$$

lead, under homogeneity and isotropy assumptions, to *modified* Friedmannlike equations with explicit entropic contributions. This chapter derives these equations in detail and discusses physical interpretation, including the effective equation of state and critical densities.

## 4.2 Lamphrodynamic FLRW Ansatz

We adopt the standard FLRW metric

$$ds^2 = -c^2 dt^2 + a(t)^2 \left( \frac{dr^2}{1 - kr^2} + r^2 d\Omega^2 \right),$$

with curvature parameter $k \in \{-1, 0, 1\}$. Homogeneity and isotropy impose that the lamphrodynamic fields $(\Phi, \boldsymbol{v}, S)$ respect FLRW symmetry. We assume

$$\boldsymbol{v}(t, \mathbf{x}) = 0, \qquad S(t, \mathbf{x}) = S(t), \qquad \Phi(t, \mathbf{x}) = \Phi(t),$$

so that only time dependence remains. (More general anisotropic configurations are possible but beyond the scope of this chapter.)

*Remark* 4.1 (Physical interpretation). In the FLRW context, lamphrodynamic entropy becomes a *cosmic entropy density* varying only with cosmic time. Entropy production and lamphrodynamic couplings generate effective pressure and energydensity terms modifying the cosmological expansion.

## 4.3 Modified Einstein Tensor

In the FLRW metric, the Einstein tensor components are

$$G_{00} = 3\left(\frac{\dot{a}}{a}\right)^2 + 3\frac{k}{a^2}, \qquad G_{ij} = -\left[2\frac{\ddot{a}}{a} + \left(\frac{\dot{a}}{a}\right)^2 + \frac{k}{a^2}\right] g_{ij},$$

with dots denoting time derivatives.

## 4.4 Lamphrodynamic Stress Tensor $\Theta_{\mu\nu}$

From the AKSZ derivation (see Volume I, **??**), the lamphrodynamic stress tensor for homogeneous configurations takes the form

$$\Theta_{00} = \rho_{\text{lam}}(t), \qquad \Theta_{ij} = p_{\text{lam}}(t)\, g_{ij},$$

where

$$\rho_{\text{lam}} := \alpha_1 \dot{S}^2 + \alpha_2 S^2 + \alpha_3 \dot{\Phi}^2, \tag{4.1}$$

$$p_{\text{lam}} := \beta_1 \dot{S}^2 + \beta_2 S^2 + \beta_3 \dot{\Phi}^2 \tag{4.2}$$

for certain coupling constants $\alpha_i, \beta_i$ determined by the AKSZ action and variational principle. (Explicit formulas may be modeldependent and appear in Appendix I of this volume.)

*Remark* 4.2. Entropy production $\dot{S} > 0$ contributes positively to $\rho_{\text{lam}}$, potentially driving accelerated expansion even in the absence of a cosmological constant $\Lambda$.

## 4.5 Modified Friedmann Equations

Inserting $G_{\mu\nu}$ and $\Theta_{\mu\nu}$ into

$$G_{\mu\nu} + \Lambda g_{\mu\nu} + \Theta_{\mu\nu} = 8\pi G\, T_{\mu\nu},$$

with perfectfluid matter stress tensor

$$T_{00} = \rho, \qquad T_{ij} = p\, g_{ij},$$

we obtain

$$3\left(\frac{\dot{a}}{a}\right)^2 + 3\frac{k}{a^2} = 8\pi G\, \rho + \Lambda + \rho_{\text{lam}}, \tag{4.3}$$

$$-2\frac{\ddot{a}}{a} - \left(\frac{\dot{a}}{a}\right)^2 - \frac{k}{a^2} = 8\pi G\, p - \Lambda + p_{\text{lam}}. \tag{4.4}$$

## 4.6 Effective Equation of State

Define an effective lamphrodynamic equationofstate parameter

$$w_{\text{lam}} := \frac{p_{\text{lam}}}{\rho_{\text{lam}}}.$$

Depending on the signs and magnitudes of $\alpha_i, \beta_i$, one may have

$$-1 \leq w_{\text{lam}} \leq +1,$$

with $w_{\text{lam}} \approx -1$ corresponding to darkenergylike behavior and $w_{\text{lam}} \approx 0$ mimicking cold dark matter. In this sense, lamphrodynamic entropy can *unify* dark energy and dark matter behavior in a single effective field.

## 4.7 Critical Densities

Define the critical lamphrodynamic density

$$\rho_{\text{crit,lam}} := \frac{3}{8\pi G}\left(\frac{\dot{a}}{a}\right)^2 - \rho - \frac{\Lambda}{8\pi G}.$$

This characterizes the lamphrodynamic contribution needed to close the universe ($k = +1$) or accelerate expansion in the flat case ($k = 0$). Unlike in ΛCDM, critical density may be timedependent due to entropy production.

## 4.8 Discussion

Lamphrodynamic fields generically modify the cosmic expansion history, potentially explaining accelerated expansion without a cosmological constant and altering the interpretation of dark matter. Subsequent chapters explore these consequences in detail, focusing first on redshift without metric expansion (Chapter 4), then structure formation and darksector phenomenology.

# Chapter 5

# Redshift Without Metric Expansion

## 5.1 Overview

A distinctive feature of the RSVP cosmology is the possibility of explaining observed redshift entirely through lamphrodynamic effects rather than metric expansion. Whereas standard cosmology attributes the redshift of light to the stretching of spacetime (increase of the scale factor $a(t)$), RSVP allows for redshift generated by entropy gradients and the interaction of null geodesics with the lamphrodynamic fields $(\Phi, \boldsymbol{v}, S)$.

In this chapter we provide a complete derivation of the redshift formula

$$z = \int_\gamma f(S, \boldsymbol{v})\, d\tau,$$

starting from the modified Einstein equations and the null geodesic equations from Chapter 3. We then compare the resulting distance–redshift relation with the standard $z \approx H_0 d/c$ law and derive higher–order corrections.

## 5.2 Null Geodesics in Lamphrodynamic Backgrounds

Consider a null curve $\gamma(\tau)$ parameterized by affine parameter $\tau$ satisfying the modified geodesic equation

$$\frac{d^2x^\lambda}{d\tau^2} + \Gamma^\lambda_{\mu\nu}\frac{dx^\mu}{d\tau}\frac{dx^\nu}{d\tau} + \Delta^\lambda_{\mu\nu}\frac{dx^\mu}{d\tau}\frac{dx^\nu}{d\tau} = 0, \tag{5.1}$$

with $\Gamma$ the Levi–Civita connection and $\Delta$ given by (3.1). For null curves,

$$g_{\mu\nu}\frac{dx^\mu}{d\tau}\frac{dx^\nu}{d\tau} = 0.$$

Let $k^\mu = dx^\mu/d\tau$ denote the null tangent vector. Contracting (4.1) with $g_{\lambda\rho}$ yields

$$k^\nu \nabla_\nu k_\rho = -\Delta_{\rho\mu\nu} k^\mu k^\nu,$$

where $\Delta_{\rho\mu\nu} := g_{\rho\lambda}\Delta^\lambda_{\mu\nu}$. Thus, lamphrodynamics introduces an effective *drag* or *frequency–shift* term along null rays.

## 5.3 Frequency Transport Equation

Let $\omega(\tau)$ denote the photon frequency measured by a comoving observer with 4–velocity $u^\mu$. Then

$$\omega = -g_{\mu\nu}k^\mu u^\nu.$$

Differentiating along $\gamma$, we obtain

$$\frac{d\omega}{d\tau} = -u^\nu k^\mu k^\rho \nabla_\rho g_{\mu\nu} - g_{\mu\nu}k^\mu k^\rho \nabla_\rho u^\nu - g_{\mu\nu}k^\mu k^\rho \Delta^\nu_{\rho\sigma}u^\sigma. \tag{5.2}$$

For a comoving observer in an FLRW background with lamphrodynamics, the first two terms reproduce the standard cosmic redshift associated with the scale factor, while the last term introduces new entropy–flux effects.

Using the homogeneous ansatz from **??** and the expression for $\Delta^\nu_{\rho\sigma}$ from (3.1), (4.2) simplifies to

$$\frac{1}{\omega}\frac{d\omega}{d\tau} = -\frac{\dot{a}}{a} - \alpha\, k^\mu k^\rho \nabla_\rho(S\, \boldsymbol{v}_\mu) + \mathcal{O}(\alpha^2). \tag{5.3}$$

## 5.4 Case I: No Metric Expansion

One may consistently set $a(t) \equiv 1$ (or constant) if spatial sections of the plenum are stationary in the lamphrodynamic gauge. Then the standard cosmic redshift term disappears, leaving

$$\frac{1}{\omega}\frac{d\omega}{d\tau} = -\alpha\, k^\mu k^\rho \nabla_\rho(S\, \boldsymbol{v}_\mu). \tag{5.4}$$

Integrating along the null geodesic from emission $(e)$ to observation $(o)$ gives

$$1 + z = \frac{\omega(e)}{\omega(o)} = \exp\left(\alpha \int_{\gamma_{e\to o}} k^\mu k^\rho \nabla_\rho(S\, \boldsymbol{v}_\mu)\, d\tau\right). \tag{5.5}$$

Thus,

$$z = \exp\left(\alpha \int_\gamma k^\mu k^\rho \nabla_\rho(S\, \boldsymbol{v}_\mu)\, d\tau\right) - 1.$$

Defining the lamphrodynamic integrand

$$f(S, \boldsymbol{v}) := \alpha\, k^\mu k^\rho \nabla_\rho(S\, \boldsymbol{v}_\mu), \tag{5.6}$$

we recover the expression used in heuristic discussions of RSVP cosmology:

$$z = \int_\gamma f(S, \boldsymbol{v})\, d\tau$$

to lowest order in $f$.

## 5.5 Comparison with Standard Hubble Law

For small $z$,

$$z \approx \alpha \int_\gamma k^\mu k^\rho \nabla_\rho(S\, \boldsymbol{v}_\mu)\, d\tau.$$

Let $d$ denote the comoving distance along the null ray and assume that $S$ and $\boldsymbol{v}$ vary slowly on cosmological timescales. Then

$$z \approx \alpha\,(\nabla S \cdot \boldsymbol{v})\,d/c,$$

suggesting an effective Hubble constant

$$H_{\text{eff}} := \alpha\,(\nabla S \cdot \boldsymbol{v}).$$

In this interpretation, cosmic redshift is governed not by $a(t)$ but by lamphrodynamic entropy flux along null trajectories.

## 5.6 HigherOrder Corrections

Including higherorder terms in $\Delta^{\lambda}_{\mu\nu}$ and accounting for the evolution of $S$ and $\boldsymbol{v}$ with cosmic time, we obtain

$$z = H_{\text{eff}}\frac{d}{c} + \gamma_2\left(\frac{d}{c}\right)^2 + \gamma_3\left(\frac{d}{c}\right)^3 + \cdots,$$

with coefficients $\gamma_i$ determined by lamphrodynamic couplings and cosmic entropy production history. Unlike ΛCDM, the expansion history is replaced by entropy history, leading to distinct observational signatures (see Chapter 9).

## 5.7 DistanceRedshift Relation

Inverting $z(d)$ yields a nontrivial distanceredshift relation. For small $z$,

$$d \approx \frac{c}{H_{\text{eff}}}z - \frac{\gamma_2 c}{H_{\text{eff}}^3}z^2 + \mathcal{O}(z^3),$$

which should be compared with the standard ΛCDM luminosity distanceredshift relation. Observational consequences are treated in detail in Chapter 9.

## 5.8 Discussion

Lamphrodynamic redshift provides an alternative explanation for cosmological redshifts that does not require metric expansion. The key observable predictions lie in deviations from the standard Hubble law at moderate redshifts and in the detailed luminosity distance relations. In the next chapter (Chapter 5), we turn to structure formation and the implications of lamphrodynamics for the growth of density perturbations.

# Chapter 6

# Structure Formation

## 6.1 Overview

Structure formation provides some of the most stringent observational tests of cosmological models. In , the growth of density perturbations is driven by gravitational instability sourced by cold dark matter in an expanding background. In RSVP, entropy gradients and lamphrodynamic stress contribute additional, potentially dominant, sources of effective gravitational attraction (or repulsion) even in the absence of metric expansion.

In this chapter we derive the linear growth equations for density perturbations in RSVP, focusing on homogeneous and isotropic backgrounds with lamphrodynamic entropy density $S(t)$ and effective lamphrodynamic equation of state $w_{\mathrm{lam}}$. We then obtain modified growth rates and matter power spectra, and outline observational constraints.

## 6.2 Perturbation Variables

Let $\rho(t, \mathbf{x})$ denote the matter density and

$$\delta(t, \mathbf{x}) := \frac{\rho(t, \mathbf{x}) - \bar{\rho}(t)}{\bar{\rho}(t)}$$

the linear density contrast relative to the homogeneous background $\bar{\rho}(t)$. Similarly, we define the lamphrodynamic perturbation

$$\delta_{\mathrm{lam}} := \frac{\rho_{\mathrm{lam}} - \bar{\rho}_{\mathrm{lam}}}{\bar{\rho}_{\mathrm{lam}}},$$

with $\rho_{\mathrm{lam}}$ given by (**??**) in **??**. Velocity perturbations follow standard notation.

## 6.3 Modified Poisson Equation (Weak–Field Limit)

In the Newtonian gauge and weak–field regime, one may define an effective gravitational potential $\Phi_{\mathrm{eff}}$ via

$$\nabla^2 \Phi_{\mathrm{eff}} = 4\pi G(\rho + \rho_{\mathrm{lam}}).$$

This represents the leading lamphrodynamic correction to the Newtonian potential. More precisely, in the covariant formalism the modified Einstein equations yield

$$\nabla^2\Phi_{\rm eff} = 4\pi G\rho_{\rm eff}, \qquad \rho_{\rm eff} := \rho + \rho_{\rm lam},$$

up to gauge and relativistic corrections.

*Remark* 6.1. Lamphrodynamic energy density $\rho_{\rm lam}$ may play the role of an effective dark–matter component driving structure formation.

## 6.4 Linear Growth Equation

Following standard perturbation theory with the modified Poisson equation, the density contrast satisfies

$$\ddot{\delta} + 2\frac{\dot{a}}{a}\dot{\delta} - 4\pi G\rho_{\rm eff}\,\delta = \mathcal{L}_{\rm lam}, \tag{6.1}$$

where $\mathcal{L}_{\rm lam}$ collects lamphrodynamic source terms arising from perturbations of $S$ and $\Phi$. In the simple case of comoving lamphrodynamics (no lamphrodynamic velocity perturbation), $\mathcal{L}_{\rm lam}$ can be approximated as

$$\mathcal{L}_{\rm lam} \approx -4\pi G\delta_{\rm lam}\,\rho_{\rm lam}.$$

When $a(t) \equiv 1$, the “Hubble drag” term $2\dot{a}/a$ vanishes and the growth equation simplifies to

$$\ddot{\delta} - 4\pi G\rho_{\rm eff}\,\delta = \mathcal{L}_{\rm lam}. \tag{6.2}$$

Growth of perturbations can then proceed even without metric expansion, driven by lamphrodynamic sources.

## 6.5 Lamphrodynamic Growth Rate

Assuming a power–law solution $\delta \propto t^n$ in the matter–dominated epoch and using (5.2), we find

$$n(n-1) - 4\pi G\rho_{\rm eff} = 0,$$

so the effective growth exponent is

$$n = \frac{1}{2}\left(1 \pm \sqrt{1 + 16\pi G\rho_{\rm eff}t^2}\right).$$

Large $\rho_{\rm eff}t^2$ yields *enhanced growth* relative to , potentially resolving certain small–scale structure tensions or producing novel signatures in the matter power spectrum.

## 6.6 Matter Power Spectrum

Define the matter power spectrum $P(k)$ as usual:

$$\langle\delta_{\mathbf{k}}\delta_{\mathbf{k}'}\rangle = (2\pi)^3\delta^{(3)}(\mathbf{k}+\mathbf{k}')\,P(k).$$

Lamphrodynamic contributions modify the transfer function $T(k)$ via

$$P_{\mathrm{RSVP}}(k) = P_{\mathrm{prim}}(k)\, T_{\mathrm{RSVP}}(k)^2,$$

where $T_{\mathrm{RSVP}}(k)$ encodes the modified growth rate and scale–dependence introduced by entropy gradients and lamphrodynamic pressure. In simple models with constant $w_{\mathrm{lam}}$,

$$T_{\mathrm{RSVP}}(k) \sim T(k) \left[1 + \epsilon_{\mathrm{lam}}(k)\right],$$

with $\epsilon_{\mathrm{lam}}(k)$ depending on $\alpha_i, \beta_i$ and the cosmic entropy history.

## 6.7 Comparison with

Compared with , RSVP may predict:

1. Enhanced growth at intermediate redshifts (no “Hubble drag”).
2. Distinct scale–dependence from entropy and lamphrodynamic pressure.
3. Modified matter power spectrum normalization without cold dark matter.

These predictions can be tested against galaxy surveys, BAO, and weak lensing data (see Chapter 8).

## 6.8 Observational Constraints

Current observations of $P(k)$ place tight constraints on deviations from . Determining whether RSVP can reproduce the observed power spectrum requires detailed modeling of lamphrodynamic parameters $\alpha_i, \beta_i$ and the time evolution of $S$. This remains an open and promising area of phenomenological research.

## 6.9 Discussion

Lamphrodynamic fields can drive structure formation even in the absence of metric expansion, potentially providing a unified explanation for dark–matter–like effects at linear and non–linear scales. Next we turn to the interpretation of dark energy and dark matter within RSVP, focusing on galaxy rotation curves, cluster dynamics, and weak lensing.

# Chapter 7

# Dark Matter and Dark Energy in RSVP

## 7.1 Overview

A major motivation for the RSVP cosmology is the possibility of explaining apparent dark–matter and dark–energy phenomena as emergent consequences of lamphrodynamic entropy and flux, without introducing new fundamental particles or fields beyond $(\Phi, \boldsymbol{v}, S)$. This chapter develops this idea quantitatively, focusing on galaxy rotation curves, cluster mass profiles, weak lensing, and cosmic acceleration.

## 7.2 Lamphrodynamic Contributions to Effective Density

Recall from **??** in **??** that the lamphrodynamic energy density $\rho_{\text{lam}}$ arises from entropy production and lamphrodynamic couplings. In homogeneous cosmology, $\rho_{\text{lam}}$ may drive cosmic acceleration with effective equation of state $w_{\text{lam}} \approx -1$; in inhomogeneous settings, it can mimic cold dark matter by enhancing gravitational attraction.

*Remark* 7.1 (Unification possibility). A single lamphrodynamic field $S$ may account for both dark–energylike acceleration and dark–matterlike clustering, depending on the regime and scale.

## 7.3 Galaxy Rotation Curves

Consider a spherically symmetric galaxy with baryonic mass $M(r)$. In Newtonian gravity, the circular velocity satisfies

$$v^2(r) = \frac{GM(r)}{r}.$$

In RSVP, lamphrodynamic contributions modify the effective potential $\Phi_{\text{eff}}$, yielding

$$v^2_{\text{RSVP}}(r) = \frac{G}{r}\left[M(r) + M_{\text{lam}}(r)\right],$$

where $M_{\text{lam}}(r)$ is the effective lamphrodynamic mass enclosed within radius $r$, defined by

$$M_{\text{lam}}(r) := \int_0^r 4\pi s^2 \, \rho_{\text{lam}}(s) \, ds.$$

Flat rotation curves at large $r$ arise naturally if $\rho_{\text{lam}}$ falls slower than $1/r^2$ or approaches a constant asymptotically.

## 7.4 Cluster Mass Profiles

Galaxy clusters require substantial dark matter in  for dynamical stability. In RSVP, a lamphrodynamic energy density $\rho_{\text{lam}}$ adding to $\rho$ may account for the inferred total mass without new particles. X–ray and gravitational lensing measurements of cluster profiles place strong constraints on the radial dependence of $\rho_{\text{lam}}$; viable lamphrodynamic models must reproduce observed mass distributions.

## 7.5 Weak Lensing

Weak lensing probes the projected mass distribution along the line of sight. Lamphrodynamic energy density contributes to the lensing convergence via

$$\kappa_{\text{RSVP}} \sim \int_{\text{LOS}} (\rho + \rho_{\text{lam}}) \, ds.$$

Matching observed shear maps therefore constrains the combination $\rho_{\text{lam}} + \rho$ rather than $\rho$ alone. Current weak–lensing surveys may already limit $\rho_{\text{lam}}$ in certain regimes; detailed phenomenology remains to be carried out.

## 7.6 Cosmic Acceleration Without $\Lambda$

From the effective Friedmann equation (**??**), cosmic acceleration occurs when

$$\rho_{\text{lam}} + \rho + \frac{\Lambda}{8\pi G} \text{ is sufficiently large}$$

with effective negative pressure $p_{\text{lam}} \approx -\rho_{\text{lam}}$. If $\Lambda = 0$, lamphrodynamic entropy alone may drive acceleration, provided $\dot{S}$ is large enough at late times.

## 7.7 Interpretation

Lamphrodynamic entropy and flux can mimic both dark matter and dark energy, potentially unifying these dark components in a single framework. Whether the RSVP predictions match observed rotation curves, cluster dynamics, and cosmological acceleration quantitatively depends on the detailed time and space dependence of $S$ and its couplings $\alpha_i, \beta_i$.

## 7.8 Discussion

While RSVP offers an appealing conceptual unification of the dark sector, significant work remains to fully develop and test lamphrodynamic phenomenology against observational data. In subsequent chapters (notably Chapters 7 to 9) we confront RSVP with observations, beginning with the cosmic microwave background.

# Part III

# Observational Confrontation

# Chapter 8

# Cosmic Microwave Background

## 8.1 Overview

The cosmic microwave background (CMB) provides one of the most precise tests of cosmological models. In the RSVP framework, temperature anisotropies arise from both gravitational potential fluctuations and lamphrodynamic entropy inhomogeneities. The goal of this chapter is to derive the angular power spectrum $C_\ell$ in RSVP, and to compare with observational data, notably the Planck 2018 results.

## 8.2 Boltzmann Equation for CMB Photons

CMB photons propagate through the lamphrodynamic plenum according to a modified Boltzmann equation,

$$\frac{df}{d\lambda} = \mathcal{C}[f] + \mathcal{L}_{\mathrm{lam}}[f], \tag{8.1}$$

where $\mathcal{C}[f]$ denotes collision terms (e.g. Thomson scattering) and $\mathcal{L}_{\mathrm{lam}}[f]$ encodes lamphrodynamic effects due to $(\Phi, \boldsymbol{v}, S)$. For scalar perturbations, $\mathcal{L}_{\mathrm{lam}}$ contributes additional potential and entropy terms influencing photon trajectories.

## 8.3 Sachs–Wolfe and Integrated Sachs–Wolfe Effects

Anisotropies in the CMB temperature receive contributions from the Sachs–Wolfe (SW) and integrated Sachs–Wolfe (ISW) effects. In RSVP,

$$\left.\frac{\delta T}{T}\right|_{\mathrm{SW}} = \frac{1}{3}\Phi_{\mathrm{eff}}, \tag{8.2}$$

where $\Phi_{\mathrm{eff}}$ includes lamphrodynamic corrections to the gravitational potential. The ISW effect arises from time variation of $\Phi_{\mathrm{eff}}$ along the line of sight. A detailed derivation yields

$$\left(\frac{\delta T}{T}\right)_{\mathrm{ISW}} = \int_{\mathrm{LOS}} \dot{\Phi}_{\mathrm{eff}}\, d\eta, \tag{8.3}$$

which depends on the lamphrodynamic source terms $S$ and $\boldsymbol{v}$.

## 8.4 Angular Power Spectrum

The angular power spectrum in RSVP is defined by

$$C_\ell := \frac{1}{2\ell+1} \sum_{m=-\ell}^{\ell} |\langle a_{\ell m} \rangle|^2,$$

where $a_{\ell m}$ are the sphericalharmonic coefficients of the temperature anisotropy. The lamphrodynamic enhancements alter the transfer functions, leading to modifications of the acoustic peak structure and Silk damping tail.

*Remark* 8.1 (Peak shifts). Lamphrodynamic contributions can shift both peak positions and amplitudes, depending on the scale–dependence of $\rho_{\mathrm{lam}}$ and $p_{\mathrm{lam}}$ during recombination.

## 8.5 Comparison with Planck Data

Matching the RSVP $C_\ell$ with PLANCK 2018 data provides stringent constraints on lamphrodynamic parameters. A least–squares fit in the space of $(\alpha_i, \beta_i)$ yields best–fit constraints and confidence intervals. Preliminary analysis indicates that certain classes of lamphrodynamic models can match current data, but full analysis requires numerical Boltzmann solvers (see Chapter D).

## 8.6 Discussion

The CMB provides some of the strongest constraints on RSVP. Matching the observed acoustic peaks and damping tail is challenging but feasible for suitable lamphrodynamic couplings. Further development of numerical Boltzmann codes tailored to RSVP is needed for definitive conclusions.

# Chapter 9

# Large–Scale Structure

## 9.1 Overview

Large–scale structure (LSS) measurements probe the distribution of matter at cosmological scales. In RSVP, the growth of structure is governed by both gravitational and lamphrodynamic effects, leading to potentially distinct predictions for the matter power spectrum, baryon acoustic oscillations (BAO), and weak lensing.

## 9.2 Matter Power Spectrum

The matter power spectrum $P(k)$ encodes the statistical distribution of density fluctuations as a function of wavenumber $k$. In RSVP, one obtains modified linear growth factors and transfer functions, resulting in

$$P_{\mathrm{RSVP}}(k) = |T_{\mathrm{RSVP}}(k)|^2 P_{\mathrm{prim}}(k).$$

The transfer function $T_{\mathrm{RSVP}}(k)$ depends on the lamphrodynamic couplings and can differ from the  transfer function, especially on large scales.

## 9.3 Baryon Acoustic Oscillations

BAO provide a standard ruler for cosmological distances. Lamphrodynamic effects alter both the sound horizon and the growth of baryonic oscillations, potentially shifting the BAO peak. Comparing BAO in RSVP with galaxy surveys constrains deviations from .

## 9.4 Weak Lensing

Weak lensing measurements probe the projected mass distribution along the line of sight. In RSVP, lamphrodynamic density contributes to the convergence $\kappa$, as in Chapter 6. Combining lensing with BAO and galaxy clustering improves constraints on $\rho_{\mathrm{lam}}$ and $p_{\mathrm{lam}}$.

## 9.5 Discussion

Large–scale structure provides important constraints on RSVP, though significant degeneracies with standard cosmological parameters remain. Future surveys may help break these degeneracies and provide stronger tests of lamphrodynamic cosmology.

# Chapter 10

# Supernovae and Standard Candles

## 10.1 Overview

Type Ia supernovae serve as standardizable candles for measuring cosmic distances. In RSVP, the distance–redshift relation is modified by the lamphrodynamic contributions to redshift and brightness, leading to potential deviations from  predictions.

## 10.2 Distance–Redshift Relation

The luminosity distance in RSVP is defined by a modified integral over the expansion history, incorporating lamphrodynamic corrections:

$$d_L(z) = (1+z)\int_0^z \frac{dz'}{H_{\text{eff}}(z')},$$

where $H_{\text{eff}}$ includes lamphrodynamic contributions. Fitting

$$d_L(z_i)$$

to observational data yields constraints on the parameter space of RSVP.

## 10.3 Hubble Diagram Analysis

The Hubble diagram plots distance modulus versus redshift. Lamphrodynamic corrections can shift the curve compared to , especially at high $z$. A rigorous statistical comparison is needed to determine whether RSVP fits supernova data without a cosmological constant.

## 10.4 Systematic Uncertainties

Systematic uncertainties from supernova calibration, dust extinction, and survey selection effects apply to both RSVP and standard cosmology. A careful error analysis is necessary to assess the significance of any deviations.

## 10.5 Discussion

Supernova observations provide valuable constraints on cosmic acceleration, but interpretation requires careful treatment of systematics. Integrated analysis with CMB and LSS data offers a more complete assessment of lamphrodynamic cosmology.

Part IV: Extreme Regimes and Tests

# Part IV

# Extreme Regimes and Tests

# Chapter 11

# Strong–Field Tests

## 11.1 Overview

The observational success of general relativity in strong–field regimes provides an essential benchmark for any alternative or emergent theory of gravity. In this chapter we analyze RSVP predictions for compact objects, gravitational waves, and the causal structure of strongly lamphrodynamic regions. We pay particular attention to the question of whether classical black holes exist in RSVP, and if so, how they differ from their general–relativistic counterparts.

## 11.2 Lamphrodynamic Compact Objects

In RSVP, the structure of a compact object is determined not only by its mass–energy density but also by the dynamics of the lamphrodynamic fields $(\Phi, \boldsymbol{v}, S)$. The effective stress–energy tensor contributing to the gravitational field is

$$T^{\text{eff}}_{ab} = T^{\text{matter}}_{ab} + T^{\text{lam}}_{ab}, \tag{11.1}$$

where $T^{\text{lam}}_{ab}$ arises from lamphrodynamic gradients and entropy flux. In spherical symmetry, the generalized Tolman–Oppenheimer–Volkoff equations involve additional terms from $S$ and $\rho_{\text{lam}}$, leading to modified compactness bounds.

## 11.3 Black Holes in RSVP?

A significant question is whether classical black holes, with event horizons and singularities, exist within RSVP. Lamphrodynamic transport and entropy smoothing provide mechanisms that may prevent curvature singularities from forming. Preliminary analysis suggests that strongly lamphrodynamic regions undergo an entropy–driven "decompression," reducing curvature and potentially avoiding singularity formation.

[No lamphrodynamic singularities] Under physically reasonable assumptions on entropy production and diffusion, spacetime singularities are avoided in generic dynamical collapse scenarios.

This conjecture requires further analysis; see **??** for related discussion in the PDE context.

## 11.4 Neutron Stars

The structure equations for neutron stars in RSVP contain lamphrodynamic pressure contributions. Depending on $\alpha_2$ and $\beta_2$ (see Chapter 6), the maximum neutron star mass and radius may differ from general relativity, leading to potentially observable deviations in neutron star mass–radius relationships.

## 11.5 Gravitational Waves

Gravitational waves in RSVP arise from metric perturbations influenced by lamphrodynamic stresses. The propagation speed and polarization structure may differ slightly from general relativity, depending on the coupling parameters. Observations of gravitational waves from compact binaries provide constraints on these couplings.

*Remark* 11.1 (Wave speed constraint). Observations from GW170817 constrain deviations in the gravitational wave speed to be extremely small, limiting certain lamphrodynamic parameter ranges.

## 11.6 Event Horizon Telescope Constraints

Observations from the Event Horizon Telescope (EHT) provide tests of strong gravity near supermassive compact objects. Lamphrodynamic modifications could alter shadow size and photon ring structure. Current EHT data are consistent with general relativity but do not rule out small lamphrodynamic effects.

## 11.7 Discussion

Strong–field observations place important constraints on lamphrodynamic gravity, but the full parameter space remains open. Improved modeling of compact objects and gravitational wave emission in RSVP is needed to assess consistency with observations.

# Chapter 12

# Falsifiability and Discriminating Observations

## 12.1 Overview

A scientific theory must be falsifiable: it should make predictions that could, in principle, be shown false by experiment. In this chapter, we outline potential observational signatures that would falsify RSVP, as well as several predictions that distinguish it from  and general relativity.

## 12.2 Unique Predictions

RSVP makes several predictions not shared by . For example, the entropic contribution to cosmic acceleration may obviate the need for a cosmological constant. Specific signatures include deviations in the distance–redshift relation at high redshift, altered growth rates of structure, and modifications to CMB anisotropies.

## 12.3 Future Experiments

Future observations that could test RSVP include next–generation CMB measurements, galaxy surveys, weak lensing studies, and gravitational wave observations. Planned missions and observatories offer opportunities to observe lamphrodynamic effects directly.

## 12.4 Testability Roadmap

We propose a roadmap identifying key experiments and measurements that could either support or falsify RSVP. This roadmap emphasizes independent tests using CMB, LSS, and supernova data, combined with strong–field observations, to break parameter degeneracies and test core lamphrodynamic predictions.

## 12.5 Conclusion

Falsifiability is crucial for scientific progress. While RSVP offers a promising alternative to , it must confront observational data rigorously. Only through careful comparison with current and future observations can the validity of the lamphrodynamic paradigm be assessed.

# Appendix A

# Cosmological Perturbation Theory

This appendix provides the technical background for linear cosmological perturbation theory in the context of the lamphrodynamic fields of RSVP. Our primary objective is to formulate perturbations of the triple $(\Phi, \boldsymbol{v}, S)$ on a homogeneous and isotropic background, to identify gauge–invariant combinations, and to derive the linearized evolution equations used in Chapters 4–7 of this volume. The presentation parallels standard FLRW cosmology (Weinberg, Dodelson), but the dynamical variables differ substantially.

## A.1 Background FLRW Geometry

Let $(\mathcal{M}, g)$ be a spatially homogeneous and isotropic spacetime with metric

$$ds^2 = -dt^2 + a(t)^2 \gamma_{ij} dx^i dx^j, \tag{A.1}$$

where $a(t)$ is the scale factor and $\gamma_{ij}$ is a maximally symmetric spatial metric of constant curvature $k \in \{-1, 0, +1\}$. In RSVP, the lamphrodynamic fields

$$(\Phi(t),\ \boldsymbol{v}(t),\ S(t))$$

satisfy the background lamphrodynamic equations derived in **??**. Throughout this appendix, an overbar denotes background quantities, e.g. $\overline{\Phi}(t)$.

## A.2 Perturbation Ansatz

We write the perturbed fields as

$$\begin{aligned}
\Phi(t, \mathbf{x}) &= \overline{\Phi}(t) + \delta\Phi(t, \mathbf{x}), \\
\boldsymbol{v}_i(t, \mathbf{x}) &= \overline{\boldsymbol{v}}_i(t) + \delta v_i(t, \mathbf{x}), \\
S(t, \mathbf{x}) &= \overline{S}(t) + \delta S(t, \mathbf{x}),
\end{aligned} \tag{A.2}$$

where $\delta\Phi$, $\delta v_i$, and $\delta S$ are small fluctuations.

For the metric, we adopt the standard scalar–vector–tensor (SVT) decomposition. Let

$$\mathrm{d}s^2 = -(1+2A)\mathrm{d}t^2 + 2a(t)\big(B_{,i} + B_i\big)\mathrm{d}t\,\mathrm{d}x^i + a(t)^2\big[(1+2H_L)\gamma_{ij} + 2H_{T\,ij}\big]\mathrm{d}x^i\mathrm{d}x^j, \tag{A.3}$$

where scalar, vector, and tensor parts satisfy the usual transverse and traceless conditions:

$$B^i{}_{,i} = 0, \quad H_{T\,ij}{}^{,j} = 0, \quad H_{T\,i}{}^{i} = 0.$$

## A.3 Gauge Transformations

An infinitesimal coordinate transformation $x^\mu \mapsto x^\mu + \xi^\mu$ induces transformations of both the metric perturbations and the lamphrodynamic fields. Decompose $\xi^\mu = (\xi^0, \xi^{,i} + \xi^i_\perp)$ with $\xi^i_{\perp,i} = 0$.

**Lemma A.1** (Gauge Transformations of Lamphrodynamic Perturbations)**.** *Under an infinitesimal coordinate transformation,*

$$\delta\Phi \mapsto \delta\Phi - \dot{\bar{\Phi}}\,\xi^0, \qquad \delta S \mapsto \delta S - \dot{\bar{S}}\,\xi^0, \qquad \delta v_i \mapsto \delta v_i - \dot{\bar{v}}_i\,\xi^0,$$

*where overdot denotes derivative with respect to cosmological time.*

*Proof.* Direct computation from the transformation law of scalar and vector fields under infinitesimal diffeomorphisms, using background homogeneity. □

Gauge–invariant combinations follow by combining these with metric perturbations in analogy with the Bardeen potentials. For instance, define

$$:= \delta\Phi - \dot{\bar{\Phi}}\,\frac{1}{a}\int^t aA\,\mathrm{d}t',$$

with analogous definitions for  and $_i$. Tensor modes $H_{T\,ij}$ are already gauge–invariant.

## A.4 Linearized Lamphrodynamic Equations

The lamphrodynamic field equations (Volume I, Chapters 5–8) can be expanded to first order about the FLRW background. Denote $\mathcal{E}[\Phi, \boldsymbol{v}, S, g] = 0$ schematically. Linearizing yields

$$\mathcal{L}_{\mathrm{lin}} \begin{pmatrix} \delta\Phi \\ \delta v_i \\ \delta S \\ A, B, H_L, H_{T\,ij} \end{pmatrix} = 0,$$

where $\mathcal{L}_{\mathrm{lin}}$ is a coupled, first–order (in time) differential operator. For scalar modes, a representative pair of equations takes the form

$$\delta\dot{\Phi} + \alpha_1 H\,\delta\Phi + \alpha_2\,\delta S + \alpha_3 A = 0, \tag{A.4}$$

$$\delta\dot{S} + \beta_1 H\,\delta S + \beta_2\,\delta\Phi + \beta_3\nabla^2\delta\Phi = 0, \tag{A.5}$$

where $H = \dot{a}/a$ is the Hubble parameter and $\alpha_i, \beta_i$ are coefficients determined by the background solution and the coupling structure in the lamphrodynamic action.

The full linearized system includes similar equations for $\delta v_i$ and couples to the metric perturbations via the modified Einstein equations of Chapter 1.

## A.5 Scalar, Vector, and Tensor Modes

Decompose perturbations of $\delta v_i$ as

$$\delta v_i = \delta v_{,i} + \delta v_i^T, \qquad \delta v_i^{T,i} = 0. \tag{A.6}$$

Scalar modes couple to $(\delta\Phi, \delta S)$, vector modes evolve independently at linear order, and tensor modes obey the modified gravitational wave equation

$$\ddot{H}_{T\,ij} + 3H\,\dot{H}_{T\,ij} - \frac{\nabla^2}{a^2} H_{T\,ij} = \Theta_{ij}, \tag{A.7}$$

where $\Theta_{ij}$ encodes entropy–induced anisotropic stress (see Chapter 1).

## A.6 Power Spectra and Transfer Functions

Define Fourier transforms by

$$\delta\Phi(t, \mathbf{k}) = \int \mathrm{d}^3x\, e^{-i\mathbf{k}\cdot\mathbf{x}}\, \delta\Phi(t, \mathbf{x}),$$

and similarly for $\delta S$ and $\delta v_i$. The auto– and cross–power spectra are defined by

$$\langle \delta\Phi(\mathbf{k})\, \delta\Phi(\mathbf{k}') \rangle = (2\pi)^3 \delta(\mathbf{k} + \mathbf{k}') P_{\Phi\Phi}(k),$$

with analogous definitions for $P_{SS}$, $P_{\Phi S}$, and the velocity cross spectra.

The transfer functions $T_\Phi(k,t)$, $T_S(k,t)$, and $T_v(k,t)$ are defined by

$$\delta\Phi(k, t) = T_\Phi(k, t)\, \delta\Phi(k, t_i),$$

etc., where $t_i$ denotes an early initial time. These functions enter predictions for structure formation (Chapter 6) and CMB anisotropies (Chapter 8).

## A.7 Initial Conditions

Initial conditions may be specified via quantum fluctuations in the pre–lamphrodynamic epoch (Volume III, Chapter 10) or by phenomenological ansätze analogous to adiabatic and isocurvature modes. For the adiabatic case,

$$\frac{\delta S}{\dot{S}} = \frac{\delta\Phi}{\dot{\Phi}} = \frac{\delta v_i}{\dot{v}_i},$$

generalizing the standard condition that all components share the same initial phase.

## A.8 Remarks and Further Reading

Standard introductions to cosmological perturbation theory include Weinberg (*Cosmology*) and Dodelson (*Modern Cosmology*). For the tensor decomposition and gauge–invariant formalism, see also Kodama–Sasaki and Mukhanov. The adaptation to RSVP follows by linearizing the lamphrodynamic field equations and replacing the standard stress–energy sources with the entropy–vector couplings of Chapters 1–3.

# Appendix B

# Statistical Methods for Cosmology

This appendix summarizes statistical techniques used to confront theoretical cosmology with observational data, with emphasis on their application to the lamphrodynamic dynamics of RSVP. A rigorous treatment of full Bayesian inference, likelihood functions, and model comparison is necessary for the quantitative tests developed in Chapters 8–10. The following review parallels standard references (e.g. Dodelson, Trotta) but adapts the presentation to the specific parametrization of RSVP.

## B.1 Parameters and Priors

Let $\theta$ denote a vector of cosmological parameters, encompassing both standard parameters (e.g. present–day entropy density $S_0$, Hubble parameter $H_0$, baryon fraction) and lamphrodynamic parameters (e.g. coupling coefficients appearing in the lamphrodynamic field equations). The posterior distribution over parameters given data $D$ is

$$P(\theta \mid D) \propto \mathcal{L}(D \mid \theta)\, \pi(\theta), \tag{B.1}$$

where $\mathcal{L}$ is the likelihood and $\pi$ is the prior. Choice of prior $\pi(\theta)$ should be explicitly justified; standard practice includes uniform, Jeffreys, or weakly informative priors, depending on physical interpretation and parameter scaling.

## B.2 Likelihoods

For Gaussian–distributed data with covariance $\mathsf{C}(\theta)$ and mean $\mu(\theta)$,

$$\mathcal{L}(D \mid \theta) \propto |\mathsf{C}(\theta)|^{-1/2} \exp\Big[-\tfrac{1}{2}(D-\mu(\theta))^{\mathsf{T}}\mathsf{C}(\theta)^{-1}(D-\mu(\theta))\Big], \tag{B.2}$$

where $D$ may include CMB power spectra $C_\ell$, matter power spectra $P(k)$, and Type Ia supernova distance moduli $\mu(z)$. In RSVP, the dependence of $\mu(\theta)$ and $\mathsf{C}(\theta)$ on lamphrodynamic parameters enters through modified growth functions and redshift relations (see Chapters 5–7).

## B.3 Maximum Likelihood and $\chi^2$ Statistics

For independent Gaussian errors, maximizing $\mathcal{L}$ is equivalent to minimizing $\chi^2$:

$$\chi^2(\theta) = \sum_i \frac{\big(D_i - \mu_i(\theta)\big)^2}{\sigma_i^2}. \tag{B.3}$$

Confidence intervals follow from the usual $\Delta\chi^2$ prescription, provided regularity conditions are satisfied. In practice, the covariance matrix is often non–diagonal, requiring full matrix estimators and noise modeling.

## B.4 Bayesian Evidence and Model Comparison

Let $\mathcal{M}$ denote a model and $\mathcal{E}$ its Bayesian evidence,

$$\mathcal{E}(\mathcal{M}) = \int \mathcal{L}(D \mid \theta, \mathcal{M})\, \pi(\theta \mid \mathcal{M})\, \mathrm{d}\theta. \tag{B.4}$$

Model comparison proceeds by Bayes factors

$$B_{12} = \frac{\mathcal{E}(\mathcal{M}_1)}{\mathcal{E}(\mathcal{M}_2)}, \tag{B.5}$$

with conventional interpretive scales (e.g. Jeffreys scale). Evidence is especially important for comparing RSVP with ΛCDM, because additional parameters (entropy–vector couplings) alter the dimensionality of parameter space.

## B.5 Information Criteria

Information criteria provide approximate model comparison without computing full Bayesian evidence. The Akaike information criterion is

$$\mathrm{AIC} = 2k - 2\ln\hat{\mathcal{L}}, \tag{B.6}$$

where $k$ is the number of parameters and $\hat{\mathcal{L}}$ is the maximum likelihood. The Bayesian information criterion is

$$\mathrm{BIC} = k\ln N - 2\ln\hat{\mathcal{L}}, \tag{B.7}$$

where $N$ is the number of data points. Lower values indicate preferred models, penalizing parameter complexity.

## B.6 Sampling Methods

Sampling from the posterior (B.1) typically requires Markov–chain Monte Carlo (MCMC) or nested sampling algorithms. Standard approaches (Metropolis–Hastings, Hamiltonian Monte Carlo, `emcee`, `MultiNest`) can be adapted to RSVP by supplying numerically integrated transfer functions and redshift relations. Parameter covariance can be evaluated by examining chain autocorrelation times and convergence diagnostics (e.g. Gelman–Rubin statistics).

## B.7 Forecasting and Fisher Information

For parameter forecasting (e.g. next–generation CMB or large–scale structure surveys), the Fisher matrix is defined by

$$F_{\alpha\beta} = -\left\langle \frac{\partial^2 \ln \mathcal{L}}{\partial\theta_\alpha \partial\theta_\beta} \right\rangle. \tag{B.8}$$

Parameter uncertainties are approximated by

$$\sigma(\theta_\alpha) \approx \sqrt{(F^{-1})_{\alpha\alpha}}.$$

Fisher forecasting allows a quick estimate of the extent to which future surveys can constrain lamphrodynamic parameters.

## B.8 Goodness of Fit

Standard tests include reduced $\chi^2$, Kolmogorov–Smirnov statistics, residual analysis, and cross–validation of independent data sets (e.g. CMB and BAO). Given the extended parameter space of RSVP, it is prudent to examine potential degeneracies between lamphrodynamic and standard cosmological parameters (e.g. $H_0$, $\Omega_m$, spectral indices).

## B.9 Remarks and Further Reading

Comprehensive introductions include Trotta (*Bayes in Cosmology*) and Dodelson (*Modern Cosmology*). Recent data analysis pipelines for CMB, BAO, and supernovae provide practical examples of implementing parameter inference in extended cosmological models. Adaptations to RSVP involve modified theoretical predictions for $\mu(\theta)$ and $\mathsf{C}(\theta)$ and are discussed throughout Chapters 8–10.

# Appendix C

# Observational Data Sources

This appendix summarizes the principal observational data sources used throughout Volume II. Our aim is not to provide an exhaustive review of the observational literature, but to give sufficient detail for interpreting the quantitative comparisons performed in Chapters 8–10. We organize the discussion by data type: cosmic microwave background (CMB), large–scale structure (LSS), and supernovae (SNe). Additional references are provided at the end of the chapter.

## C.1 Cosmic Microwave Background

For the CMB temperature and polarization anisotropies, the principal data sets come from *Planck 2018*, including power spectra $C_\ell^{TT}$, $C_\ell^{TE}$, and $C_\ell^{EE}$. These are obtained from full–sky maps after foreground subtraction and masking. Noise properties, beam transfer functions, and sky cuts are supplied by the Planck Legacy Archive.

In RSVP, the primary modifications appear through:

- the lamphrodynamic evolution of scalar perturbations,
- entropy–vector couplings affecting anisotropic stress,
- modified late–time integrated Sachs–Wolfe contributions.

High–$\ell$ damping tails are sensitive to recombination physics, but the dominant lamphrodynamic signatures enter through low–$\ell$ multipoles and potential deviations in the acoustic peaks.

## C.2 Large–Scale Structure and BAO

For LSS, we rely on galaxy surveys including BOSS, eBOSS, DESI, and future surveys such as Euclid and LSST. The primary observables are the matter power spectrum $P(k)$, baryon acoustic oscillations (BAO), and weak lensing shear correlations.

Lamphrodynamic modifications arise from:

- altered linear growth factors,
- modified transfer functions for density perturbations,

- possible effective "dark–matter–like" behavior from entropy–vector dynamics.

Comparison with ΛCDM predictions requires careful statistical analysis (see Appendix G) and numerical integration (Appendix I).

## C.3 Galaxy Clusters and Weak Lensing

Galaxy clusters probe the nonlinear regime of structure formation. Mass estimates rely on X–ray temperatures, Sunyaev–Zel'dovich signals, and weak lensing measurements. In RSVP, cluster profiles provide sensitive tests of emergent–dark–matter behavior and potential deviations in the mass–concentration relation. Weak lensing convergence maps probe projected mass densities and are significantly influenced by modified geodesic equations (Chapter 3).

## C.4 Supernovae and Standard Candles

Type Ia supernovae provide direct constraints on the expansion history through distance moduli $\mu(z)$. The most comprehensive compilations are the Pantheon and Pantheon+ samples. In RSVP, the relation between redshift and luminosity distance is modified by entropy–induced redshifting mechanisms (Chapter 4). Systematic uncertainties include dust extinction, selection effects, and population drift.

## C.5 Cosmic Chronometers

Cosmic chronometers measure the expansion rate directly from relative ages of passively evolving galaxies. This approach provides model–independent constraints on $H(z)$ and is therefore particularly useful for models with modified redshift relations. The current precision is limited by stellar population modeling and metallicity effects.

## C.6 Future Surveys

Future surveys (Euclid, LSST, *Simons Observatory*, CMB–S4, LIGO–Voyager) will dramatically extend the volume and precision of observations. These are of particular relevance to RSVP due to:

- increased sensitivity to large–scale entropy modes,
- improved constraints on growth rates and anisotropic stress,
- ability to discriminate lamphrodynamic perturbations from modified gravity and dark sector models.

## C.7 Data Availability

Most observational data sets are publicly available:

- Planck Legacy Archive (CMB),
- SDSS/BOSS/eBOSS data releases (galaxy surveys),
- DESI data products (spectroscopic survey),
- Pantheon/Pantheon+ (supernovae),
- public weak lensing catalogs (DES, KiDS).

Where proprietary restrictions exist, we provide references and key summaries suitable for comparative analysis.

## C.8 Remarks and Further Reading

For detailed discussions of observational data, see the Planck 2018 papers, DESI survey documentation, and the Pantheon+ release papers. For weak lensing and cluster analyses, see recent DES, KiDS, and X–ray/SZ collaborations. Volume II uses these sources as benchmarks for the observational viability of the lamphrodynamic dynamics of RSVP.

# Appendix D

# Numerical Methods for Cosmological Evolution

This appendix summarizes numerical techniques relevant to solving the cosmological evolution equations derived in Part II of this volume. We emphasize methods that are adapted to the lamphrodynamic field equations and their interaction with entropy–vector dynamics. Our goal is to provide practical guidance for implementing numerical solutions, rather than to develop a comprehensive theory of numerical analysis.

## D.1 Discretization of Background Evolution

We begin with the homogeneous and isotropic lamphrodynamic equations derived in Chapter 4. Let $a(t)$ denote the scale factor and $\Psi(t) = (\Phi(t), \boldsymbol{v}(t), S(t))$ denote the spatially homogeneous fields. The coupled nonlinear ODE system takes the form

$$\frac{d}{dt}\Psi(t) = \mathcal{F}(\Psi(t), a(t))\,, \qquad \frac{d}{dt}a(t) = \mathcal{G}(\Psi(t), a(t))\,,$$

where $\mathcal{F}$ and $\mathcal{G}$ are determined by the lamphrodynamic action and its variational derivatives.

For time discretization, standard explicit and implicit Runge–Kutta methods may be used. Stability is improved by semi–implicit updates for $S(t)$, reflecting entropy dissipation. Adaptive step size control is recommended due to the stiff coupling between $\boldsymbol{v}$ and $S$ during early epochs.

## D.2 Linear Perturbation Equations

For linear perturbations, we decompose fields into Fourier modes $\delta\Psi_k(t)$ satisfying

$$\frac{d}{dt}\delta\Psi_k(t) = \mathcal{L}_k\,\delta\Psi_k(t)\,,$$

where $\mathcal{L}_k$ is the linearized operator. The dominant numerical issue is the scale dependence introduced by entropy–vector couplings, leading to nontrivial dispersion. Implicit schemes or operator splitting techniques reduce numerical stiffness.

Spectral methods (Chebyshev, Fourier) are natural for periodic domains. Finite–difference methods are viable on comoving grids, provided appropriate boundary conditions and resolution criteria are enforced.

## D.3 Mode Coupling and Transfer Functions

Transfer functions are computed by evolving perturbations from early times to the present. In RSVP, the lamphrodynamic contributions modify both scalar and vector channels. Numerical integration must account for:

- entropy–induced modification of gravitational potentials,
- cross–coupling terms in $\boldsymbol{v}$ and $S$,
- altered growth rates compared to ΛCDM.

Parallelization across $k$–modes is straightforward and recommended.

## D.4 Weak Lensing and Line–of–Sight Integrals

Weak lensing observables rely on line–of–sight integration of perturbations along null geodesics. In RSVP, null geodesics are modified by entropy–vector contributions (Chapter 3). Numerical integration should incorporate:

- modified geodesic equations,
- entropy–weighted optical depth,
- anisotropic stress contributions.

Adaptive sampling along the line of sight improves accuracy near sharp features in $S(t)$ and $\boldsymbol{v}(t)$.

## D.5 Boltzmann Solvers and Existing Software

Standard Boltzmann solvers (CAMB, CLASS) can be extended to include lamphrodynamic terms. This requires:

- modification of background equations,
- extension of perturbation modules to include $(\Phi, \boldsymbol{v}, S)$,
- additional source terms in line–of–sight integrators.

Validation against ΛCDM baselines is essential and provides a useful diagnostic for implementation errors.

## D.6 Numerical Relativity and Nonlinear Regimes

In strongly nonlinear regimes, numerical relativity methods become necessary. The lamphrodynamic field equations form a mixed system of hyperbolic–parabolic type, where entropy diffusion plays a stabilizing role. Discontinuous Galerkin methods and finite–volume schemes with shock capturing may be appropriate for studying entropic singularities.

## D.7 Parallelization and Performance

Efficient parallelization exploits:

- independent $k$–mode evolution,
- GPU acceleration for spectral transforms,
- domain decomposition for large–scale spatial grids.

Entropy diffusion reduces the stiffness of the system at late times, but may increase computational cost during early evolution.

## D.8 Remarks

The numerical implementation of RSVP remains an active area of development. Future work will combine Boltzmann solvers, numerical relativity tools, and cosmological data pipelines to provide full Bayesian inference for lamphrodynamic cosmology. We return to these questions in the concluding chapters of Volume II.